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Contract Checking as Effects

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ABSTRACT

Contract Checking as Effects

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nice

Acknowledgements

Text for acknowledgments goes here. You can thank your advisors, peers, and family.

Preface

This is the preface (optional).

Dedication

This is the dedication (optional).

Table of Contents

ABSTRACT	3
Acknowledgements	4
Preface	5
Dedication	6
Table of Contents	7
List of Tables	8
List of Figures	9
1 Introduction	10
1.1 Contributions	11
2 Formal Language Models	12
2.1 Base Language	12
2.2 Contracts Language	12
2.2.1 Example	13
2.2.2 Formal	13
2.3 Effects Language	15
2.3.1 Example	16
2.3.2 Formal	17
3 Formal Compiler	20
4 Implementation	22
4.1 Contract States and Interaction	24
4.1.1 Global State	24
4.2 Contract Interaction	27
Bibliography	28
A Contract Erasure	30
B Effects Safety	31
C Compiler Soundness	32

List of Tables

List of Figures

Figure 1	Base Language	12
Figure 2	Contracts in action	13
Figure 3	Contracts language	14
Figure 4	Type Rules for Contracts	14
Figure 5	Reduction Rules for Contracts	15
Figure 6	Handler in action	16
Figure 7	Handler in action	17
Figure 8	Type Rules for Effects	18
Figure 9	Compiler Rules	21

CHAPTER 1

Introduction

Software contracts, or *behavioral contracts*, allow programmers to attach assertions to values, and functions. These assertions are runtime guarantees, on violation, an error is thrown, blaming the violating party. Contracts are most useful when placed on a function, enforcing the function’s input and output values. While first-order functional contracts are useful, they are too simple. Higher-order functional contracts allows programmers to enforce contracts for higher-order functions. Dependent contracts are functional contracts allowing usage of the function argument during post-condition contract checking.

Recently, algebraic effect handlers has gained a large attraction, and is adopted in OCaml since version 5.0. Effect handlers open a new way to identify effects and handling them. Handlers are defined to handle one or many effects. A handler for an effect can stop the program or continue with some result. Handlers do not have state by default, but it can be implemented by applying the new states to the continuation closure, and let the underlying computation receives a state argument.

Combining the contract system and effect handlers is a new approach. Effectful Contract [9] demonstrates how both systems can be combined, providing contracts for effectful code. Contracts in their system remain a language feature. In this dissertation, instead of combining the effects and contracts, we ask ourselves whether contract checking itself can become an effect, and reuse the capabilities of handlers.

Contracts checking can be encoded as side-effects and benefited from context sharing when handled using effect handlers.

1.1 Contributions

This thesis explores the contracts checking as effects’ approach to implementing software contracts. Through experiments, we show that this approach accomodates functional contracts, dependent contracts, and the challenging higher-order contracts. We also discovered that as effects, their contexts can be shared if they are under the same handler. Sharing contracts context opens new capabilities to optimizations and contract state sharing. This disseration shows the above idea by providing a compiler model between CPCF [2] and System F^ε [14]. We also provide an implementation in OCaml as a practical implementation.

CHAPTER 2

Formal Language Models

2.1 Base Language

We define Base language and its syntax in Figure 1. The language extends the PCF language with tuples and mutable cells. This will be the base language for both [Contracts](#) and [Effects](#).

Base	
$\tau ::= o$	$n ::= 0 \mid -1 \mid 1 \mid \dots$
$\mid \tau \rightarrow \tau$	
$\mid \langle \tau, \tau \rangle$	$b ::= \text{true} \mid \text{false}$
$\mid \text{ref}(\tau)$	
	$v ::= n \mid b \mid \langle v, v \rangle \mid x \mid \lambda x. e \mid \text{loc}$
$o ::= \text{num}$	
$\mid \text{bool}$	$E ::= \square$
	$\mid E + e \mid v + E \mid E - e \mid v - E$
$e ::= n \mid b \mid \langle e, e \rangle \mid x$	$\mid E \wedge e \mid v \wedge E \mid E \vee e \mid v \vee E$
$\mid \lambda x : \tau. e \mid \mu x : \tau. e \mid \text{loc}$	$\mid E e \mid v E \mid \text{if } E \text{ then } e \text{ else } e \mid \text{zero?}(E)$
$\mid e + e \mid e - e \mid e \wedge e \mid e \vee e$	$\mid \langle E, e \rangle \mid \langle v, E \rangle, \text{inj.l}(E) \mid \text{inj.r}(E)$
$\mid e e \mid \text{if } e \text{ then } e \text{ else } e$	$\mid \text{new}(E) \mid \text{get}(E) \mid \text{set}(E, e) \mid \text{set}(v, E)$
$\mid \text{zero?}(e)$	
$\mid \text{inj.l}(e) \mid \text{inj.r}(e)$	
$\mid \text{new}(e) \mid \text{get}(e) \mid \text{set}(e, e)$	

Figure 1: Base Language

2.2 [Contracts](#) Language

2.2.1 Example

Contracts provide a run-time validation of programs, similar to how assertions work. Contracts extend basic assertions to support functions, especially higher-order ones, correctness. Past research has move from pre/post condition placing on functions, into obligations [4], or monitors. These constructions support blame tracking, enabling the developer to know *who*, which function, is responsible for a violation.

Figure 2 illustrates a function protected with a monitor. This function should return a value that is even. When applied with 10, it is checked by the function’s *domain contract*. Since the function does not impose any properties for its argument, the contract passes. The body of the function is executed normally, but its result must pass the function’s *range contract*. Because 11 is not an even number, the program terminates with a blame.

$$\begin{aligned}
 & \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\text{flat}(\lambda x. \text{true}) \rightarrow \text{flat}(\text{iseven}), \lambda x. x + 1) 10 \\
 \rightarrow & \text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\text{flat}(\lambda x. \text{true}) \rightarrow \text{flat}(\text{iseven}), \lambda x. x + 1) 10 \\
 \rightarrow & \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\text{flat}(\text{iseven}), (\lambda x. x + 1) \text{mon}_j^{l,k}(\text{flat}(\lambda x. \text{true}), 10)) \\
 \rightarrow & \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\text{flat}(\text{iseven}), (\lambda x. x + 1) \text{guard}_j^{l,k}(\lambda x. \text{true}, 10)) \\
 \rightarrow & \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\text{flat}(\text{iseven}), (\lambda x. x + 1) \text{check}_j^{l,k}((\lambda x. \text{true}) 10, 10)) \\
 \rightarrow & \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\text{flat}(\text{iseven}), (\lambda x. x + 1) \text{check}_j^{l,k}(\text{true}, 10)) \\
 \rightarrow & \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\text{flat}(\text{iseven}), (\lambda x. x + 1) 10) \\
 \rightarrow^* & \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\text{flat}(\text{iseven}), 11) \\
 \rightarrow^* & \text{blame}_j^k
 \end{aligned}$$

Figure 2: Contracts in action

2.2.2 Formal

We define **Contracts**, in Figure 3, by extending the Base language with contracts. Contracts protect an expression, ensuring that the evaluated value conform to the contracts defined. Contracts are defined for all possible types of value. Base values, including booleans and numbers, are trivial to enforce a contract on them. While functions need to check for both its argument and return result. Not only that, functions are first-class citizen in the language, and we can form higher-order functions. A contract for function may want to “see” the

argument when checking the result, such is the idea of dependent contracts. Both contracts higher-order functions, and dependent contracts semantics are discussed in [4].

The language supports contracts for tuples. Their contracts will be applied individually during execution. Mutable cells contracts follow the work of [2], where a special contract type $\text{ref}/c(\kappa)$ is used to protect the cell's value.

Contracts extends Base	
$\tau ::= \dots$ $\text{con}(\tau)$	$\kappa ::= \text{flat}(e) \mid \kappa \rightarrow \kappa \mid \kappa \rightarrow_i \lambda x : \tau. \kappa$ $\langle \kappa, \kappa \rangle \mid \text{ref}/c(\kappa)$
$e ::= \dots$ $\text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\kappa, e)$ $\text{check}_j^k(e, v)$ blame_p^l	$v ::= \dots$ $\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\kappa, v)$ $E ::= \dots$ $\text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\kappa, E)$ $\text{check}_j^k(E, v)$

Figure 3: Contracts language

$\frac{\Gamma \vdash e : \tau \rightarrow \text{bool}}{\Gamma \vdash \text{flat}(e) : \text{con}(\tau)} \text{Type-C-Flat}$	$\frac{\Gamma \vdash \kappa_1 : \text{con}(\tau_1) \quad \Gamma \vdash \kappa_2 : \text{con}(\tau_2)}{\Gamma \vdash \kappa_1 \rightarrow \kappa_2 : \text{con}(\tau_1 \rightarrow \tau_2)} \text{Type-C-Fun}$
$\frac{\Gamma \vdash \kappa_1 : \text{con}(\tau_1) \quad \Gamma \vdash \lambda x : \tau_1. \kappa_2 : \tau_1 \rightarrow \text{con}(\tau_2)}{\Gamma \vdash \kappa_1 \rightarrow_i \lambda x. \kappa_2 : \text{con}(\tau_1 \rightarrow \tau_2)} \text{Type-C-DepFun}$	
$\frac{\Gamma \vdash \kappa : \text{con}(\tau)}{\Gamma \vdash \text{ref}/c(\kappa) : \text{con}(\text{ref}(\tau))} \text{Type-C-Ref}$	
$\frac{\Gamma \vdash \kappa_1 : \text{con}(\tau_1) \quad \Gamma \vdash \kappa_2 : \text{con}(\tau_2)}{\Gamma \vdash \langle \kappa_1, \kappa_2 \rangle : \text{con}(\langle \tau_1, \tau_2 \rangle)} \text{Type-C-Tuple}$	
$\frac{\Gamma \vdash \kappa : \text{con}(\tau) \quad \Gamma \vdash e : \tau}{\Gamma \vdash \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\kappa, e) : \tau} \text{Type-C-Mon}$	$\frac{}{\Gamma \vdash \text{blame}_l^k : \tau} \text{Type-C-Blame}$

Figure 4: Type Rules for Contracts

When a contract violation occurs, a blame is thrown with the party, caller or callee. The semantics for correct blaming has been studied under [2] and [3]. Following previous works, We use *indy* semantics for dependent contracts. We use $\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\kappa, v)$ as the run-time proxy to value v procted under a contract κ . Guard is a value, the semantics adapt to usage of guards, and expand further, sometimes back to monitor to evaluate inner expressions. A guard on a basic value will trigger a $\text{check}_j^k(e\ v, v)$ and returns the value v if it passes the predicate e , or returns a blame_j^k to party k with contract location j . The evaluation rules for **Contracts** is presented in Figure 5.

$\text{check}_j^k(\text{tt}, v)$	$\longrightarrow$	v	Check-True
$\text{check}_j^k(\text{ff}, v)$	$\longrightarrow$	blame_j^k	Check-False
$\text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\kappa, v)$	$\longrightarrow$	$\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\kappa, v)$	Mon-Guard
$\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(v, \text{flat}(e))$	$\longrightarrow$	$\text{check}_j^k(e\ v, v)$	Guard-Flat
$\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\kappa_1 \rightarrow \kappa_2, v_1)\ v_2$	$\longrightarrow$	$\text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\kappa_2, v_1\ \text{mon}_j^{l,k}(\kappa_1, v_2))$	Guard-Func
$\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\kappa_1 \rightarrow_i \lambda x. \kappa_2, v_1)\ v_2$	$\longrightarrow$	$\text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\kappa'_2, v_1\ \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\kappa_1, v_2))$	Guard-Dep
where $\kappa'_2 = \{\text{mon}_j^{l,j}(\kappa_1, v_2)/x\}\kappa_2$			
$\text{inj.l}(\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\langle \kappa_1, \kappa_2 \rangle, \langle v_1, v_2 \rangle))$	$\longrightarrow$	$\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\kappa_1, v_1)$	Guard-Inj-Left
$\text{inj.r}(\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\langle \kappa_1, \kappa_2 \rangle, \langle v_1, v_2 \rangle))$	$\longrightarrow$	$\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\kappa_2, v_2)$	Guard-Inj-Right
$\text{get}(\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\kappa, v))$	$\longrightarrow$	$\text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\kappa, \text{get}(v))$	Mon-Get
$\text{set}(\text{guard}_j^{k,l}(\kappa, v_1), v_2)$	$\longrightarrow$	$\text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\text{ref/c}(\kappa), \text{set}(v_1, \text{mon}_j^{l,k}(\kappa, v_2)))$	Mon-Set
$\frac{E \neq \square}{E[\text{blame}_j^k] \Longrightarrow \text{blame}_j^k} \text{Blame}$			

Figure 5: Reduction Rules for **Contracts**

2.3 Effects Language

2.3.1 Example

Effect handler is a new construct similar to how try/catch was designed. In fact, the idea is similar to resumable exception. An effect is invoked (throw), and a handler (try) for the effect installed prior catches. A continuation is pushed into the catch context, and can be invoked to continue the execution, or abort. Yapping...

In Figure 6, we lay out a simple example. A program wants to compute $(\mathcal{D} \ 2) + 1$ is registered with a handler h for effect $\mathcal{D}$, basically *duplicating* its input. When an effect is perform, the main program pauses the execution, and push everything later into a continuation $k = \lambda y. \text{handle } h \ (y + 1)$, at (i). Here, the continuation register the handler h again, in case the rest of the program uses $\mathcal{D}$. When the program is a value, the handler removes itself (ii). Unless , the basic value goes through the handler and is modified before removing the handler.

$$\begin{aligned}
 h &= \{\mathcal{D} \rightarrow \lambda v. \lambda k. k \ (v + v)\} \\
 &\text{handle } h \ ((\text{perform } \mathcal{D} \ \text{num } 2) + 1) \\
 \Rightarrow &\text{handle } h \ \text{perform } \mathcal{D} \ \text{num } 2 \\
 \Rightarrow &(\lambda v. \lambda k. k \ (v + v)) \ \underline{2} \ (\lambda y. \text{handle } h \ (y + 1)) \quad (i) \\
 \Rightarrow^* &(\lambda y. \text{handle } h \ (y + 1)) \ (2 + 2) \\
 \Rightarrow^* &\text{handle } h \ 5 \quad (ii) \\
 \Rightarrow &5
 \end{aligned}$$

Figure 6: Handler in action

Handlers can encode states. This is a nice touch to provide a common state across the code. We illustrate the example in Figure 7, where a simple state can be managed by two effects *get* $\mathcal{G}$, and *set* $\mathcal{S}$. As can be seen, the continuation accepts another parameter. This parameter is applied lazily, and only appears during handler execution. The continuation resumes the program with the new state, made possible because handler is installed with new state.

$$\begin{aligned}
h &= \{ \mathcal{G} \rightarrow \lambda v. \lambda k. \lambda s. k \ s \ s; \mathcal{S} \rightarrow \lambda v. \lambda k. \lambda s. k \ s \ v \} \\
&(\text{handle } h \ ((\text{perform } \mathcal{S} \text{ num } 42) + (\text{perform } \mathcal{G} \text{ num } ()))) \ 0 \\
\Rightarrow^* &(\lambda \underline{v}. \lambda \underline{k}. \lambda \underline{s}. k \ s \ v) \ 42 \ \lambda y. \text{handle } h \ (y + (\text{perform } \mathcal{G} \text{ num } ())) \ \underline{0} \\
\Rightarrow^* &(\lambda y. \text{handle } h \ (y + (\text{perform } \mathcal{G} \text{ num } ()))) \ 0 \ 42 \\
\Rightarrow^* &\text{handle } h \ (0 + (\text{perform } \mathcal{G} \text{ num } ())) \ 42 \\
\Rightarrow^* &42
\end{aligned}$$

Figure 7: Handler in action

2.3.2 Formal

We continue to extend the Base language with effects and effect handlers in Listing 1. This is done by typing the effects separately from the base types. This practice has been introduced to formalize the Koka¹ language. The approach we take here resembles the System F^ε language introduced in [14]. We added polymorphism through type application, and kinds to Base language. Two special kinds are added to represent effects (**eff**) and effect labels (**lab**). A label $l \in \mathbf{lab}$ is a group of operations. And an effect $e \in \mathbf{eff}$ is composed by chaining **lab** together with other effects. An empty effect $\langle \rangle$ defines no labels, therefore no effects can be performed. In otherwords, **eff** defines the set of effects that can be performed. A function can now produce some effects $\varepsilon \in \mathbf{eff}$, and is represented in its type $\tau_1 \rightarrow^\varepsilon \tau_2$. Original type for function $\tau_1 \rightarrow \tau_2$ is understood as pure, without effects, $\tau_1 \rightarrow^{\langle \rangle} \tau_2$.

The language is then extended with handlers, handler installation (**handle** $h \ e$), and calling/performing an effect (**perform** $\text{op } \tau$). Handlers are a set of operations distinguishable by the operation's name. A handler denotes a single effect usually by its label $l \in \mathbf{lab}$. Performing an effect is analogous function application, therefore **perform** $\text{op } \tau$ is treated as a value, where application for it has a distinct reduction rule. The evaluation context is thus extended to support handler installation.

¹<https://koka-lang.github.io/>

Effects extends Base

$\tau ::= \dots$ $\quad \alpha^k \mid c^k \tau \dots \mid \tau \rightarrow^\varepsilon$ $\quad \tau \mid \forall \alpha^k. \tau$		$v ::= \dots$ $\quad \Lambda \alpha^k. v$ $\quad \text{handler } h$ $\quad \text{perform op } \tau$
$k ::= *$ $\quad k \rightarrow k$ $\quad \text{eff}$ $\quad \text{lab}$ $\quad \text{blab}$		$E ::= \dots$ $\quad E[\tau]$ $\quad \text{handle } h E$
	Blame Label	$F ::= \square$ $\quad F + e \mid v + F \mid F \wedge e \mid v \wedge$ $\quad F \mid F \vee e \mid v \vee F$ $\quad F e \mid v F$ $\quad \text{if } F \text{ then } e \text{ else } e$ $\quad F[\tau]$
$e ::= \dots$ $\quad e[\tau]$ $\quad \text{handle } h e$ $\quad \text{blame}_p$		
$h ::= \{\text{op}_1 \rightarrow f_1, \dots, \text{op}_n \rightarrow$ $\quad f_n\}$		

Listing 1: **Effects** language

Typing for an effect language requires some consideration. Following the works in [14], we define the type judgement relationship $\Delta \vdash e : \tau \mid \varepsilon$ between a type context Δ , an expression e and assert it against type τ with some possible effects ε . Variables and base values do not have effects, they can take any effects. For this reason, we define $\Delta \vdash_{\text{val}} v : \tau$. Handlers are typed using $\Delta \vdash_{\text{ops}} h : \tau \mid l \mid \varepsilon$, that it handles a *single* effect l , other effects in ε remains unhandled, and all operations returns τ . All type rules unique to **Effects** is presented in Figure 8.

$\frac{\dots}{\dots} \text{SomeRule}$

Figure 8: Type Rules for **Effects**

Lastly the semantic model of **Effects** is presented in Listing 2. A handler can be installed to a function as a shorthand, where it applies the function with a unit argument, which to be ignored. The reduction for handling an effect calling is encoded as *deep handler*. Supporting the shallow should be straightforward by not installing the handler again in the continuation k . There is little advantage to support shallow handlers, therefore, only deep handlers are used. While looking for the handler, we make sure we get the innermost handler that can handle the operation.

$$\begin{array}{lll}
(\Lambda \alpha^k.v)[\tau] & \Longrightarrow & v[\alpha := \tau] \quad \text{Step-E-TApp} \\
\text{handler } h \ v & \Longrightarrow & \text{handle } h \ (v \ ()) \quad \text{Step-E-Handler} \\
\text{handle } h \ v & \Longrightarrow & v \quad \text{Step-E-Return} \\
\\
\frac{\text{op} \notin \text{bop}(E) \wedge (\text{op} \rightarrow f) \in h \quad \text{op} : \forall \alpha. \tau_1 \rightarrow \tau_2 \in \Sigma(l) \quad k = \lambda x : \tau_2[\alpha := \tau]. \text{handle } h \ E[x]}{\text{handle } h \ E[\text{perform op } \tau \ v] \Longrightarrow f[\tau] \ v \ k} & \text{Step-E-Perform} \\
\\
\frac{E \neq \square}{E[\text{blame}_p] \Longrightarrow \text{blame}_p} & \text{Effect-Error} \\
\\
\textbf{Helper functions} \\
\begin{array}{lll}
\text{bop}(\square) & = & \emptyset \\
\text{bop}(E \ e) & = & \text{bop}(E) \\
\vdots & \vdots & \vdots \\
\text{bop}(\text{handle } h \ E) & = & \text{bop}(E) \cup \{\text{op} \mid (\text{op} \rightarrow f) \in h\}
\end{array}
\end{array}$$

Listing 2: Reduction Rules for **Effects**

CHAPTER 3

Formal Compiler

In this section, we discuss a compiler from **Contracts** to **Effects**. It is straightforward that many expressions are inherited from the Base language, and the compiler keeps these same constructions. What is left are contract-related expressions. To reiterate our idea that a contract is a side effect, we define such effect as $\mathcal{C}$. This effect ideally receives a tuple of $\langle l, \langle e, v \rangle \rangle$ where l is the blame label, e is the contract predicate, and v is the protected value. Then, a flat contract [Compile-Flat] is simply an invocation of such effect with its correct inputs.

Functional contracts are more complex. Because the effect can only be invoked on a flat contract, the compiler recursively expands the expression, pads the expression into a function when it is expecting a function. During the execution, new variables are generated to pad the expression into a function. The process is also applicable to dependent contracts. However, the dependent contract needs to update the post contract with a contract for argument. This is trivial but requires a duplication of compilation with a different label.

After all flat contracts are converted into performing an effect, we need a handler. A simple handler can be installed like below:

$$h = \{\mathcal{C} \rightarrow \lambda \langle l, \langle e, v \rangle \rangle. \lambda k. \text{ if } e \ v \text{ then } k \ v \text{ else } \text{blame}_l\}$$

where $\lambda \langle l, \langle e, v \rangle \rangle$ deconstructs the value into tuple pattern

This handler performs the check for the value v , with the predicate/contract e . The continuation k is invoked with the value if the check passes, and blame the label l if the contract is violated. At first glance, this handler is correct. In fact, the handler should produce correct semantic, as long as no dependent contracts are used. When dependent

contracts are used, e is now populated with monitored arguments, which after compilation should include **perform** $\mathcal{C}$ τ arg. And since the handler is moved into the continuation k , there is no handler at $e v$.

TODO: add example here

$$\begin{array}{c}
\frac{}{\Gamma \vdash \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\text{flat}(e), v) : \tau \multimap \text{perform } \mathcal{C} \tau \langle k, \langle e, v \rangle \rangle} \text{Compile-Flat} \\
\\
\frac{\begin{array}{c} x \notin \Gamma \quad \Gamma \vdash \text{mon}_j^{l,k}(\kappa_1, x) : \tau_1 \multimap x_1 \\ \Gamma, x : \tau_1 \vdash \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\kappa_2, (\lambda x : \tau_1. e) x_1) : \tau_2 \multimap e_1 \end{array}}{\Gamma \vdash \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\kappa_1 \rightarrow \kappa_2, e) : \tau_1 \rightarrow \tau_2 \multimap e_1} \text{Compile-Func} \\
\\
\frac{\begin{array}{c} x \notin \Gamma \quad \Gamma \vdash \text{mon}_j^{l,k}(\kappa_1, x) : \tau_1 \multimap x_1 \quad \Gamma \vdash \text{mon}_j^{l,j}(\kappa_1, x) : \tau_1 \multimap x_2 \\ \kappa_3 = \{x_2/x\}\kappa_2 \quad \Gamma, x : \tau_1 \vdash \text{mon}_j^{k,l}(\kappa_3, (\lambda x : \tau_1. e) x_1) : \tau_2 \multimap e_1 \end{array}}{\Gamma \vdash \text{mon}_j^{k,l}\left(\kappa_1 \xrightarrow{d} \lambda x. \kappa_2, e\right) : \tau_1 \rightarrow \tau_2 \multimap e_1} \text{Compile-Dep}
\end{array}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
\text{h}_{\mathcal{C}} : \text{lab} &= \{ \mathcal{C} \rightarrow \forall \alpha. \langle \text{blab}, \langle \alpha \rightarrow \text{bool}, \alpha \rangle \rangle \rightarrow \alpha \} \\
\text{wrap} &= \mu w : \forall \alpha. ((\ () \rightarrow \langle \text{h}_{\mathcal{C}} \rangle \alpha) \rightarrow \alpha). \Lambda \alpha. \lambda f : (\ () \rightarrow \langle \text{h}_{\mathcal{C}} \rangle \alpha). \\
&\quad \text{handle } \{ \mathcal{C} \rightarrow \lambda \langle l, \langle e, v \rangle \rangle. \lambda k. \text{ if } w[\text{bool}] (\lambda(). e v) \text{ then } k v \text{ else } \text{blame}_l \} f \\
&\quad \text{where } \lambda \langle l, \langle e, v \rangle \rangle \text{ deconstructs the argument as tuple pattern}
\end{aligned}$$

Figure 9: Compiler Rules

To resolve this issue, we define a recursive function `wrap` that will reinstall the handler at $e v$ making sure all effects during contract checking is handled. All compilation rules are defined in Figure 9. With `wrap` defined, we can make some theorems about the compiler.

Theorem 3.1. Compiler Type Preservation.

If $\cdot \vdash e_1 : \tau \multimap e_2$ then $\cdot \vdash e_2 : \tau \mid \langle \text{h}_{\mathcal{C}} \rangle$.

Theorem 3.2. Compiler Effect Safety with `wrap`.

If $\cdot \vdash e_1 : \tau \multimap e_2$ then $\cdot \vdash \text{wrap}[\tau] e : \tau \mid \langle \rangle$.

CHAPTER 4

Implementation

We implement the formal compiler model into OCaml, by adding a preprocessor. We utilize the OCaml attribute to add contract annotations to variables. The preprocessor rewrites annotated variables according to the compiler rules defined. Note that the compiler does not place a handler during compilation, but after the compilation. Because the handler must be installed around the whole program, more precisely, around everywhere the contract annotated variables are used. The developer can install the handler manually by invoking a predefined wrapper, or annotate a function as `main` and the preprocessor rewrites to add wrapper automatically.

Annotations are OCaml annotations. Although OCaml annotations support string-like payload, we find it better to use a OCaml type expression as payload to define contracts. Annotations are not code, therefore we cannot support first-order contracts, and use function names as predicates. In Listing 3, we define the contract annotation syntax that developers can use to annotate their OCaml code with contracts.

```

1  (* flat contract *)
2  let [@contract : predicate] x : t = e
3
4  (* function contract
5   * arguments are inside a tuple
6   *)
7  let [@contract : (p1_pred * p2_pred) -> f_pred]
8    f (p1 : t1) (p2 : t2) : t = f_body
9
10 (* dependent function contract
11  * similarly to function contract, annotated with as 'dep
12  *)
13 let [@contract : (p1_pred * p2_pred) -> g_pred as 'dep]
14   g (p1 : t1) (p2 : t2) : t = g_body
15
16 (* tuple contract
17  * using tuple syntax and annotated with as 'tuple
18  *)
19 let [@contract : (t1_pred * t2_pred) as 'tuple]
20   tup : (t1 * t2) = (e, e)

```

Listing 3: OCaml Contract Annotation Example

The preprocessor rewrite using the compiler rules. All flat contracts are compiled into a single effect, formally it is $\mathcal{C}$, implementation wise we define a name `Contract.Check`.

```

1  module Contract = struct
2  type _ Effect.t +=
3    | Check : (string * ('a -> bool) * 'a) -> 'a Effect.t
4  end

```

`wrap` is defined similarly in OCaml, we remove the type annotations for clarity.

```

1  let rec wrap thunk =
2    Effect.Deep.match_with thunk ()
3    {
4      Effect.Deep.retc = (fun x -> x);
5      exnc = (fun e -> raise e);
6      effc = fun eff ->
7        let open Effect.Deep in
8        match eff with

```

```

9      | Flat (label, check, arg) ->
10      Some (fun k ->
11          let ok = wrap (fun () -> check arg) in
12          if ok
13          then continue k arg
14          else discontinue k (Blame label))
15      | _ -> None
16  }

```

4.1 Contract States and Interaction

4.1.1 Global State

Because the entire program is wrapped into a single handler for all effects, we can unify a single state for effects only. Predicates must now receive an extra argument, which is the context. The wrap function is now defined with an extra argument current context, and it returns the result and updated context. At the callsite, it is provided with the initial value. States are provided to the handler, therefore the handler provide two effects to get and set the state.

```

1  type state = int
2  let state_init = 0
3
4  let rec wrap_inner : type r. (unit -> r) -> state -> r * state =
5      fun thunk init ->
6          match_with thunk ()
7      {
8          retc = (fun x state -> (x, state));
9          exnc = (fun e _state -> raise e);
10         effc = fun (type a) (eff : a Effect.t) ->
11             let handle_eff : ((a, state -> r * state) continuation -> state -> r
12                 * state) option =
13                 match eff with
14                 | Get -> Some (fun k state -> continue k state state)
15                 | Set x -> Some (fun k _state -> continue k () x)
16                 | Flat (label, check, arg) ->

```



```

16      Some (fun k state ->
17          let (ok, updated_state) = wrap_inner (fun () -> check arg)
18              state in
19              if ok
20              then continue k arg updated_state
21              else discontinue k (Blame label) updated_state)
22      | _ -> None
23  in
24      handle_eff
25  }
26  init
27
28  let wrap main =
29      let r, _ = wrap_inner main state_init in
30      r
31
32  let () = wrap main

```

This approach works, but with a small caveat. Main code can access this state, and can potentially modify the contract's state. This issue is easily resolved by making two more handlers, one handler for state, and one handler perform recursive wrapping for contract checking code. The state handler is installed in the main wrapper, placing on the top most contract checking code. When a contract check occurs it opens a new scope, starting with the current state. All dependent contract checking code originates from this top most contract update on the same state. Once the top most contract code returns, the state is updated at the continuation of the main wrapper. Because the state is registered by the main wrapper, and the handler for state is registered only when contract checking code executes, main code has no access to this state.

However, in this implementation, a `Flat` effect might be invoked arbitrarily by the main code. In an actual language implementation, we suggest this effect be private, or a special keyword to prevent developers interact with the effect state.

```

1  let rec with_state : type res. (unit -> res) -> int -> res * int = 
2    fun thunk init ->
3    match_with thunk ()
4    { retc = (fun x s -> (x, s));
5      exnc = (fun e _ -> raise e);
6      effc = fun (type a) (eff : a Effect.t) ->
7        let handler : ((a, int -> res * int) continuation -> int -> res *
8          int) option =
9          match eff with
10         | Get -> Some (fun k s -> continue k s s)
11         | Set x -> Some (fun k _ -> continue k () x)
12         | _ -> None
13       in handler
14    } init
15
16 let rec wrap_inner : type res. (unit -> res) -> res =
17   fun thunk ->
18   match_with thunk ()
19   { retc = (fun x -> x);
20     exnc = (fun e -> raise e);
21     effc = fun (type a) (eff : a Effect.t) ->
22       match eff with
23       | Flat (label, check, arg) ->
24         Some (fun k ->
25           let ok = wrap_inner (fun () -> check arg) in
26           if ok then continue k arg
27           else discontinue k (Blame label))
28       | _ -> None
29   }
30
31 let rec wrap : type res. (unit -> res) -> int -> res * int =
32   fun thunk init ->
33   match_with thunk ()
34   { retc = (fun x s -> (x, s));
35     exnc = (fun e _ -> raise e);
36     effc = fun (type a) (eff : a Effect.t) ->
37       let handler : ((a, int -> res * int) continuation -> int -> res *
38         int) option =

```

```

37      match eff with
38      | Flat (label, check, arg) ->
39          Some (fun k current_state ->
40              let (ok, next_state) =
41                  with_state (fun () -> wrap_inner (fun () -> check arg))
42                      current_state
43              in
44                  if ok then continue k arg next_state
45                  else discontinue k (Blame label) next_state)
46      | _ -> None
47      in handler
48  } init

```

4.2 Contract Interaction

All contract are unified under a single context. This context is accessible through two effects `Get` and `Set`. Let this context be a simple key-value storage, then programmers can devise complicated schemes to track function calls, current function scope, internal contract state, etc, ...

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CHAPTER A

Contract Erasure

CHAPTER B

Effects Safety

CHAPTER C

Compiler Soundness

Proof of Theorem 1. something Lemma 3

□

Proof of Theorem 2. something else

□

Lemma 3.1.